BURIAL TREATMENT OF WOMEN IN SANISERA, SPAIN: UNDERSTANDING THE CULTURAL IDENTITY OF WOMEN IN THE 5TH TO 7TH CENTURY SPAIN

by

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In fifth to seventh century Spain, the lives of women in the former Roman city of Sanisera were influenced by indigenous, Roman and Christian cultures. These cultures shaped the way women lived, how they were treated, and how women identified themselves. By looking at the context of the tombs found in the Sanisera site, the lack of articulated skeletal remains posed challenges to the mortuary study. The skeletal remains are limited and when found, the remains are fractured, or in poor condition due to the soil composition that did not allow proper skeletal preservation. The site has been looted in the past and has been re-used for re-burial which disturbed the stratigraphc layers in the tombs. The main focus of this research is the comparative analysis on the archaeological traits of Roman, indigenous, and Christian cultures, by comparing them with the archaeological remains found at the Sanisera site and throughout the Iberian region. The archaeological data are summarized as a supplement and to reflect the cultures associated in context with the burials.

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INTRODUCTION

There is not much known historically or archaeologically about the developments of European society in the post-Roman world due to a lack of literary writings in the "Dark Ages" beginning in the fifth century A.D. Given the context of what is known after the fall of the Roman Empire, Christianity has spread throughout Europe, migrations from Germanic tribes settling into Southern Europe and rapid organizational changes that led to what is known as the Medieval Period. This "Dark Age" is most interesting in that it is not widely known or discussed in a historical context and almost glossed over by historians and archaeologists who were more interested in Antiquity or Medieval times. I propose that studying this period would enable readers to understand the complexity of culture and identity in the post-Roman Menorca, Spain.

The main focus of this research is to understand how post-Roman period women underwent changes in their identity, status and culture through examination of burial practices. Analysis of artifacts found in the tombs and comparative analysis of Menorcan and Iberian tombs and their contexts will be explored and discussed in this study. Furthermore, case studies of specific Visigothic tombs (indicator of early Christian culture) are explored to form as a supplement and comparison to the tombs found in Menorca. Carmona Berenguer's study on the Visigoth necropolis in Andalucía, Spain described that the structure of the tombs are rock cut, contained multiple burials and are orientated in west-east fashion with the human remains facing south or southwest (Berenguer 1998). This trait is common with early Christian burials due to the belief that the human body is sacred and must return to the earth as a reflection of man made

from dust in Genesis. More importantly, the early Christians preferred to have the intact body ready for the second coming of Jesus Christ for judgment. In contrast, with Roman burials, the body is usually cremated and placed in an urn in catacombs in this region. However, the process of inhumation did not come into popularity until the second century, AD. Artifacts found within the Menorcan tombs are cause for significance in determining the dominant culture of the people buried in the tombs. These artifacts will be analyzed and compared against similar artifacts found in the Iberian region to estimate the most likely date of the burials, the dominate culture and religious association in the treatment of women in the post-Roman World.

As the amounts of artifacts recovered were few and limited, we will look into the stratigraphy of the tombs in relation to the remains found within the same context. The main questions for this research are:

1. What was the dominate culture of the people buried at Sanisera?
2. What traits can be identified as female?
3. What were the traits that can determine the status of females or female cultural activity?

These questions will be the guidelines to help understand the history of the peoples living in Menorca, how they compare against nearby regions of Hispania and in what ways they are influenced by other cultures, especially the Roman Empire. Also, historical documentation is the key into understanding firsthand and secondary accounts in the form of laws, historical research, and other forms of documentation available.

This topic is explored by utilizing information from the 2008 and 2009 field excavations done in Cap de Cavalleria, Menorca, Spain (Figure 1), archaeological case studies, mortuary field analysis and looking into the cultural remains themselves to compare against Roman, native Talayotic and Early Christian traits commonly found within the island and Roman Empire.

Figure 1. Map of Menorca, one of the Balearic Islands in Spain, black dot specifies the location of the archaeological site of Sanisera (modified by author http://www.menorca-tourism.net/) accessed on February 15, 2011.

The site of Sanisera is located in the northernmost point of the island which is safe from the strong northern winds known as the *Tramuntana*. This specific area allows a safe harbor for ships as well as a strategic point for Roman military to control merchant trade and keep the Mediterranean Sea from pirates and other invasions (Contreras 2006). The Sanisera site contains the Roman Military fort (Figure 2) overlooking the harbor with the port city of Sanisera nearby. The necropolis is further away from the port city overlooking the bay of Cala Ferraga (seen in Figure 1). The fort is built on the highest point in the area of about 15 to 20 meters with the natural rocky terrain serving as a natural defense system (Contreras 2006). Additional walls were built to provide the best defense possible for the Roman soldiers in Sanisera.

Figure 2 View of the Roman Military fort foundation, forefront of picture denotes a trench with the barracks in the background (photograph from author 2010).

The port city of Sanisera itself covers an area of about 60,000 square meters with foundations of a large building which is fully revealed and excavated by the Field School students of 2010 (Appendix: Figure A). The necropolis area which is north from the building is over 250 square meters in size (Nicolas 1985). Over 25 tombs are presently known and are in a rectangular formation. The tomb structures were walled with large flat stones and lined with *opus caementum* (Figure 3) mixed with lime and ceramic (Nicolas 1985). *Opus caementum* is an Ancient Roman concrete composed of lime, sand, water and pozzolan which is a type of volcanic ash native to southern Italy. In a nearby area, foundations of what appears to be a basilica dated from the fifth to sixth century A.D. are found which most likely suggests that the necropolis is used as a burial ground for the inhabitants of that period (Garrido 1998).

Figure 3 An example of one of the many tomb structures found throughout the Necropolis area of the site (Personal photograph 2010).

Archaeological excavations began in 1979 sponsored by the Museum of Menorca in which Maria Cristina Rita, Jose Ignacio Latorre and Juan Antonio Orfila directed the excavations of the site of Sanisera (Nicolas 1985). In the mid 1980s, Dr. Fernando Contreras and his crew continued the excavations started by the previous archaeologists and in 1993, began developing a museum dedicated to the site of Sanisera. Since then, Dr. Fernando Contreras developed a field school program in 1996 to not only provide students an opportunity to learn excavation methods and history of the island, but to also excavate and systematically explore the area.

BACKGROUND

Overview

After the fall of the Roman Empire, the small island of Menorca, Spain underwent a series of changes economically, politically and culturally. In the A.D. 400s to 500s, the Visigoths[1] took over Spain and Christianity spread throughout the region including Menorca. This exchange of cultures helped to create a new identity for the inhabitants of Menorca. However, little is known to how women were treated in Menorca as a result of extensive off-island contact..

The Necropolis excavation in the outskirts of the Roman city of Sanisera on Menorca has numerous burials from the period in question including those of women who were found to have bronze jewelry as grave goods. My hypothesis is that the bronze jewelry in the burials is a symbol of class, status, and identity that reflect Roman cultural influences. Through these grave goods the status, class or public identity of women is expressed which is uncommon in Christian or Visigoth Spain. If the jewelry is symbolic of personal and cultural identity, then it means that the manner in which women were buried with their possessions reflects their living status and is carried over into the afterlife.

Prehistory of Menorca

Menorca was first inhabited by humans in the Third Millennium B.C. in through the First Millennium B.C. (Contreras 1998). In the late second millennium B.C., a Bronze Age culture emerges in which the inhabitants constructed megaliths out of local stone. This period marks the emergence of the Talayotic[2] culture and society in which their construction of megaliths and stone structures begin to appear as early as 1600 B.C.; also called the Naviform period (Perez

[1] Visigoths were a Germanic tribe who settled in Hispania during the A.D. 400s. (Heather 1997)
[2] Talaiot is another spelling of Talayot, both terms are equally valid.

2005). According to Rafael Perez, the Naviform is named for the type of stone houses found which are similar to a shape of a boat. The Talayotic people developed metallurgy which allowed them to create bullets (for slinging), jewelry, and other items that were used for human activity (Contreras 2008). The Talayots were named after the watchtowers they constructed in their villages which may suggest that the island of Menorca were prone to battles between warring tribes (Appendix: Figure B). In the center of the village proper, there are Taulas, T-shape structures that serves as either an altar or part of a temple. It appears that rituals are performed there in the form of burnt offerings. The social structure of the Talayots is not fully researched but, documentation from scholars such as archaeologist Dr. Fernando Contreras; state that it is a communal society that relied on local trade and agriculture.

When the Carthaginians from North Africa began to expand in territory, Menorca became the focus for help in the war against Rome. During the First Punic War of 264 B.C. – 241 B.C. and Second Punic War of 218 B.C – 201 B.C., the Carthaginians recruited the Talayots because of their use of slingshots proved to Carthage[3] that the people of Menorca are valuable as mercenaries (Contreras 1998). Pliny the Elder himself agreed with the Carthaginians as he made specific mention of the slingers of Menorca who were so formidable in war with their slingers, they were given the name Gymnasiae by the Greeks (Tufts: Pliny Nat. 3.11). Pliny also mentions three cities, Jamnon (Cuitadela), Sanisera, and Magon (Mahon) of which only Jamnon and Magon are still present and inhabited to this day (Tufts: Pliny Nat. 3.11). Another historian, Livy makes mention of Menorca in his work "The History of Rome". Livy makes a passing mention of how well the Talayots were valued for their skill as slingers:

[3] Carthage is the name for both the empire and the city in North Africa which began as a Phoenician colony in 814 B.C. and defeated by Rome in the Third Punic War of 149 B.C - 146 B.C. (Contreras 1998)

> There are two islands so called; the larger one[Majorca] ….possessed a harbor where Mago [Carthaginian] thought he could conveniently shelter his fleet for the winter…but his fleet met with quite as hostile a reception as if the island had been inhabited by Romans. The sling which the Baleraics [Talayots] make most use of today was at that time their sole weapon, and no nation comes near them in the skill with which they handle it. When the Carthaginians tried to approach the land, such a shower of stones fell upon them like a violent hailstorm that they did not venture inside the harbor. Putting out once more to sea they approached the smaller island, which possessed a fertile soil, but fewer resources in men and arms. Here they landed and encamped in a strong position commanding the harbor, from which they became masters of the island without meeting any resistance. They raised a force of 2,000 auxiliaries which they sent to Carthage and then beached their ships for the winter (Livy 28.37).

After the fall of Carthage, Menorca became almost forgotten and prone to pirates in the region (Contreras 1998). It is not until 123 B.C. that Quintus Caecilius Metellus realized the concerns of piracy and trade in the western provinces would threaten the governing powers of the Roman Empire.

Menorca and the Roman Empire

Because of its geographic location, the people on the island were able to keep direct contact with other Mediterranean regions. After the Third Punic War, Menorca fell under the hands of pirates (Contreras 1998). The presence of pirates in Menorca was a concern for the General Quintus Caecilius Metellus, 'the Balearic' (Contreras 1998). He feared that the pirates in Menorca would be an obstacle in the growth and development of the Roman Empire (Contreras 1998). Menorca was then taken over and a military presence was established to protect trade and the inhabitants. At this point in time, Roman, Talayot and Carthaginian cultures became mixed due to constant contact (Contreras 1998). At the peak of the Roman Empire, Menorca became a provincial territory which provided mercenaries, trade goods and military protection of the coasts of Hispania and Northern Africa (Figure 4).

Figure 4 Map of the Roman Empire circa 250 B.C. to 30 B.C. (Lancer 2002)

Fall of the Roman Empire

The western half of the Roman Empire began to decline due to a series of government corruptions and barbaric invasions from Germanic tribes and the Huns in the A.D. 400s (Wickham 2009). The invasions of the Germanic tribes sacked Rome of its treasures and later conquered and settled in the surrounding territories of the western half of the Roman Empire. These Germanic tribes follow the Christian religion and thus helped give Christianity a rise to power leading to the Medieval Period. By the mid AD 450s, the territories of the former Western Roman Empire were divided among the different Germanic tribes governing the area creating

kingdoms (Figure 5).

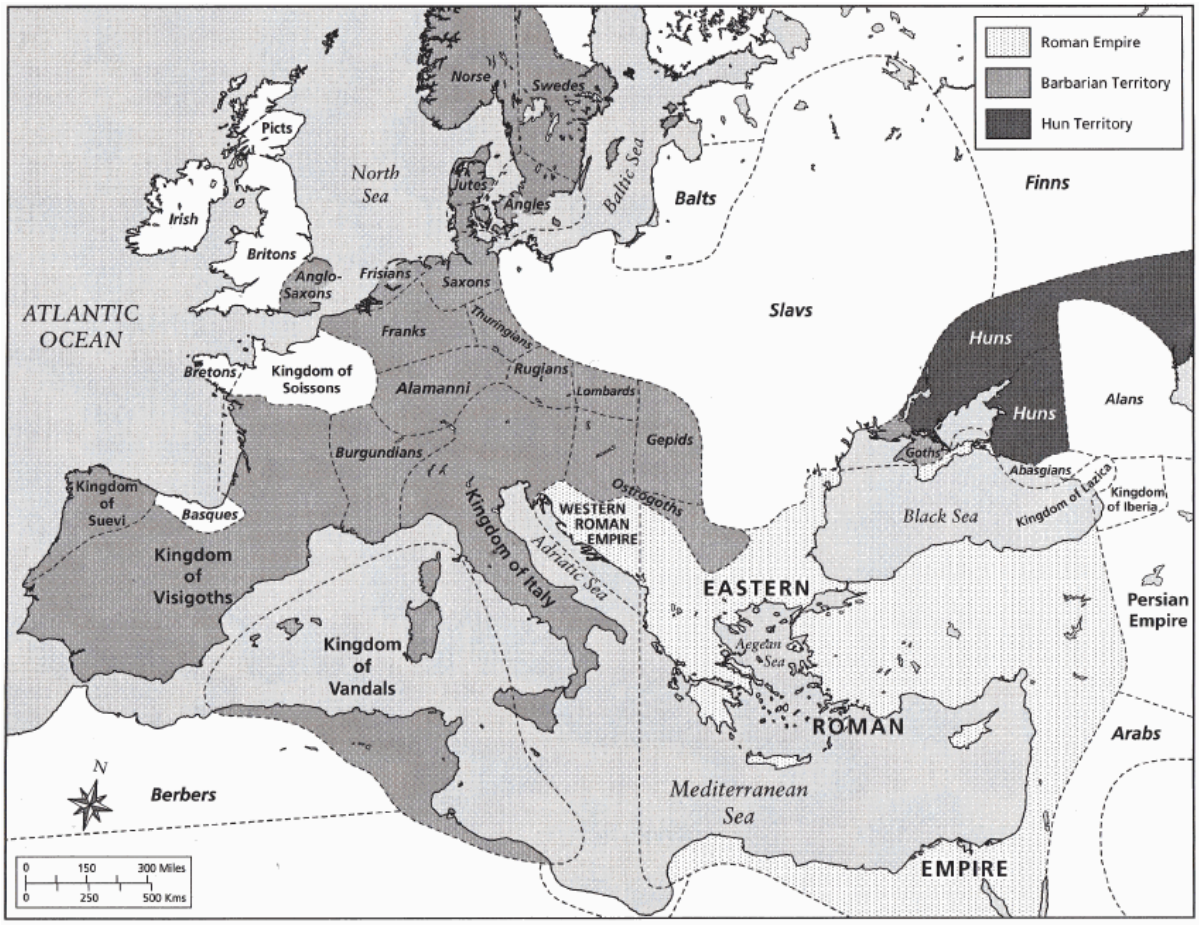


Figure 5 Map of the Mediterranean World under Germanic conquest circa A.D. 476 (Lancer 2002)

The Germans and Rome

The Germans in the Roman Empire lived across the Danube and Rhine Rivers which became the natural borders between them and Rome (Strayer and Munro 1973: 24). Their social structure is known to be a mixture of agriculture and hunting. According to historians, Joseph Strayer and Dana Munro, this social structure meant that the population of Germans were scattered and made this situation easy for them to migrate into other regions in which the Germans became part of

the Empire (either by moving in or recruited into the military), adopting the Latin language, and the Roman laws (Strayer and Munro 1973: 25).

The Germans had metalworking, especially in blacksmithing and goldsmithing in which their technology allowed them to make effective weapons, with the exception of gold in which they are used for ornaments (Strayer and Munro 1973: 25). Strayer and Munro mention that the women wove linen and woolen cloth as well as made pottery at the time. In terms of building, the Germans mostly used wood for building since the region they lived in is full of trees unlike the city of Rome in which stone and brick were the main resources. The Germans followed oral customs and traditions within the community. An example of this is the laws of *Breviarium Alarici* (Breviary of Alaric II) which have a listing of offenses, fines and penalties associated with them (Strayer and Munro 1973: 57-58).

In the time of Agustus, Germanic tribes were known to be fierce warriors and the cause of Agustus's nightmares when he lost his Roman legions in the Teutoberg Forest. It was not until A.D. 21 that P. Quintilius Varus and three of his legions of up to twenty thousand men were defeated in the most brutal massacre by the Germans:

> Varus' extensive first camp, with its broad extent and headquarters marked out, testified to the whole army's labours…On the open ground were whitening bones, scattered where men had fled, heaped up where they have stood and fought back. Fragments of spears and of horses' limbs lay there, also human heads fastened to tree trunks. In groves nearby where the outlandish altars at which the Germans had massacred the Roman 'colonels' and 'senior company-commanders'. Survivors of the catastrophe, who had escaped from the battle or from captivity pointed out where the generals had fallen, and where the Eagles were captured. They showed where Varus had received his first wound, and where he died by his own unhappy hand. (Heather 2007:46)

This account shows how the Germanic tribes were well versed in the art of warfare and almost a sense of foreshadowing in the future of the power of the Roman Empire. In terms of their social organization, historian Cornelis Tacitus (circa A.D. 54

– A.D. 117) compiled his observations on the Germans in his book *Germania*. Tacitus found that the Germans have a distinct class system in which the wealthier Germans wore form fitting vests made out of hides (Tacitus: Part I). Women's dresses are similar to how the men are styled with the exception of a sleeveless garment and linen embroidered in purple. He also observed the status of women especially on the issues of matrimony:

> The parents and relations attend and declare their approbation of the presents, not presents adapted to feminine pomp and delicacy, nor such as serve to deck the new married woman; but oxen and horse accoutered, and a shield, with a javelin and sword. By virtue of these gifts, she is espoused. She too on her part brings her husband some arms. This they esteem the highest tie, these the holy mysteries, and matrimonial Gods. That the woman may not suppose herself free from the considerations of fortitude and fighting, or exempt from the casualties of war, the very first solemnities of her wedding serve to warn her, that she comes to her husband as a partner in his hazards and fatigues, that she is to suffer alike with him, to adventure alike, during peace or during war. (Tacitus: Part I)

Marriage and monogamy, according to Tacitus, appears to be one of the most important values among the Germans. Their expectations on the role of their wives are similar to that of the Romans in which the wives tend to the children, husbands and the home. However, there is a difference in that the German women are expected to participate and support their husbands in times of war, a trait not advisable for Roman women. In relation to marriage, adultery is an issue that is considered unforgivable by the Germans. Tacitus notes that if a wife is caught committing adultery, the husband cuts her hair, expels her from his home naked in the presence of her kindred[4] (Tacitus Part I). With this action, the adulteress is unable to marry regardless of her beauty, youth or wealth. Tacitus fails to mention what happens to the men who commit the crime of adultery, so it is difficult to determine the accuracy on this observation.

[4] It is not known fully what Tacitus means by the term kindred as either family or peers in the village.

Into the later years of the Roman Empire circa A.D. 396, a group of Germanic tribe called the Goths first appeared settling in the frontier of Thrace (Heather 2007:72). The Goths originated in the Oder and Vistula Rivers of modern day Poland until the A.D. third century they expanded to modern day Ukraine due to overpopulation in their homeland as well as escaping the threat of the invading Huns (Wolfram 1992: 149). They then settled in the region of Dacia in which Emperor Valens became concerned with the migration of the Goths settling near Rome. According to historian, Peter Heather, there seems to be conflicting information on whether Emperor Valens or Athanaric of the Goths instigated the rivalry between Rome and the Goths. Apparently, whatever happened between the two factions, this event resulted in the Goths becoming distrustful of the Roman government. But, attempts at peace between the factions were made by the emperors to keep the Roman frontiers secure.

With the focus on warring against Persia, the Germans were recruited to help fight with the Romans and a chance in integrating with Roman society (Heather 2007: 73-75). This gesture didn't last when a famine broke out sometime in A.D. 376 and Rome was unable to supply food nor arable land. A revolt broke out among the Goths which took approximately six years plundering the region, Valen's death in A.D. 378 and destruction of the Roman army (Heather 2007). The Goths who sought asylum within the Roman Empire, then separated into two 'supergroups' known as the Ostrogoths and most importantly, the Visigoths in the A.D. fourth and fifth centuries (Heather 1996: 169).

The Visigoths are one of the most well known Germanic groups recognized by Rome from the sacking of Rome to the kingdom of Toledo in Hispania. The Visigoths

were first organized by Alaric I who successfully sacked Rome in A.D. 410 and later on moved to Gaul and Hispania as their final settlement. The Vandals, another Germanic tribe, were pushed out by the Visigoths in which they took control of the land and its inhabitants. The Visigoths brought with them their Germanic customs and traditions, Latin language, Roman laws as well as their treasures stolen from Rome and established a strong presence in Hispania. One such documentation called the *Forum Ludicum* (Visigothic Code) put together in the mid A.D. 600s combining German traditions and customs, Christianity and Roman precepts (Lopez 1998). The code itself is made up of twelve books divided into titles each detailing the laws and issues of concern for the people (Figure 6).

	Title	**Contents**		**Title**	**Contents**
Book I	Legal Agencies	Laws and Lamaking procedures	**Book VII**	Theft and Fraud	Thieves, stolen property
Book II	Conduct of Causes	Court Matters	**Book VIII**	Acts of Violence and Injuries	Plunder, arson, attacks
Book III	Marriage	Nuptial Contracts, women's rights	**Book IX**	Fugitives and Refugees	Hospitality, issue of fugitives
Book IV	Natural Lineage	Inheritance	**Book X**	Partition of Land	Partition of lands, boundaries, leasing
Book V	Business Transactions	Sales, exhanges, debts	**Book XI**	Sick and the Dead, and Merchants	Physicians, sick persons, death, grave robbing
Book VI	Crimes and Tortures	fraud, abortion, malefactors	**Book XII**	Prevention of Official Oppression	Moderation of power, Jewish rights

Figure 6 The contents of the Visigothic Code from author (Scott 1908: Library of Iberion Resources Online. http://www.libro.uca.edu/vcode/visigoths.htm) accessed on March 30, 2011.

As a result, the Germanic peoples and the Hispano-Romans have transformed themselves into a Hispanic nation in the late seventh century (Claude 1998: 130). The ruling Visigoths were concerned in keeping the peace with the Romans and native peoples already living there so the Visigoths enacted policies that allowed the inhabitants to freely preserve their culture. Along with that, the Visigoths wanting to hold their power, socially mingled with the elite Romans and even intermarried to form the aristocratic class in the later Medieval Ages (Lopez 1998: 516). In the Visigothic society, the Visigoths practiced Christianity and are already familiar with the Roman culture and the Latin language. Their Gothic language did not really disappear completely until the Moors invaded Hispania (Lopez 1998).

Another Germanic group, the Vandals emerged to become one of the most well known groups to sack and destroy Rome. The Vandals in the A.D. fifth century crossed the Rhine River into Rome and shortly left to Gaul and Hispania (Wolfram 1997: 159). The Visigoths attacked the Vandals for control of Hispania and thus the Vandals moved onto the Balearic Islands and plundered the area in A.D. 422 (Wolfram 1997: 162). After being pushed from Hispania, the Vandals in A.D. 439 moved into North Africa and took claim of the former city of Carthage. Not much else is known about the Vandals after their attack on Rome, but there are several accounts that mention of their invasion into Rome on A.D. December 31, 406 (Le Glay, et al. 1996: 545). Le Glay mentions that the Vandals were a mix of men, women and children who migrated and even participated in the fights against Rome. They ultimately settled in North Africa and lived in a life of ‘luxury’ meaning the Vandals merely enjoyed the Roman lifestyle and adopted as their own. In addition, the Vandals ‘vandalized’ the Carthaginian

coinage meaning that the coins retained the likeness of the Roman emperor respecting the prerogative for long distance trade but, the coins itself are modified to date the year since their North African conquest of A.D. 439 (Wolfram 1997: 167). Their reign was short lived when the Byzantium Empire began to restore the former territories of the Roman Empire. The Vandals met their end when Justinian successfully defeated them in A.D. 535 circa (Wolfram 1997: 180).

METHODOLOGY

The tombs in the Necropolis of Sanisera, Menorca are the main focus of this research. Examination of the tomb structure, its contents, and human remains will help define the dominant culture present in the cultural remains from the tombs. These artifacts will be compared against Silvia Carmona Berenguer's 1998 study on the Visigothic necropolis site in Andalucia, Spain, the indigenous Talayotic burial practices as well as standard Roman burial practices starting in the second century AD. This will help better understand the context of the necropolis site in Sanisera and determine the various traits found within the different cultures. In addition, *Northern Plains Mortuary Practices* by J.S. Snortland will serve as a reference in general to identify burial modes, tomb structures, mortuary status differences, and gender differences between male and female burials.

Textual support will help supplement in understanding the historical, societal and cultural mindset of the post-Roman World. This will help draw an understanding of the role of women in this time period. Also, comparisons of artifacts found in the Sanisera with artifacts found in nearby regions of mainland Spain and the Mediterranean region will help supplement which

traits are most likely identified as the dominant culture from the tombs. Comparisons made from these artifacts will help provide a context to how the inhabitants of Menorca adapted to the changing world (socially, politically, etc) and what were the major influences in creating the specific culture. Roman, Talayotic and Visigothic cultures are not exclusive to each other but considering Menorca's history, are ingredients in a melting pot of culture. However, it is noted that one culture will appear more dominant than the rest so careful consideration will be placed in reliance to historical documents, chronological timeline, and the context of the archaeological finds in the Sanisera tombs.

Excavation Overview

Unfortunately, the soil composition in the Necropolis site is very acidic and does not allow for proper preservation of the artifacts and human remains found. The soil itself is a mixture of clay and sand which made digging nearly difficult due to the soil becoming dry and hard under the sun. The majority of the tombs show evidence of looting in the past, but it is unlikely it was looted in modern times. The area has been sectioned by makeshift walls used by farmers to keep track of their livestock.

Throughout the excavations, pottery sherds were found throughout the site both while excavating and in plain sight. In 2010, a large building was fully excavated and it is found have signs of being inhabited. The building itself is likely to be two stories tall, lined with double walls and contains several large rooms, kitchen, cistern and a possible storage facility (Figure 7). It is determined that the building itself was of Roman origin but later reused to function as an ecclesiastic complex up to the A.D. sixth century.

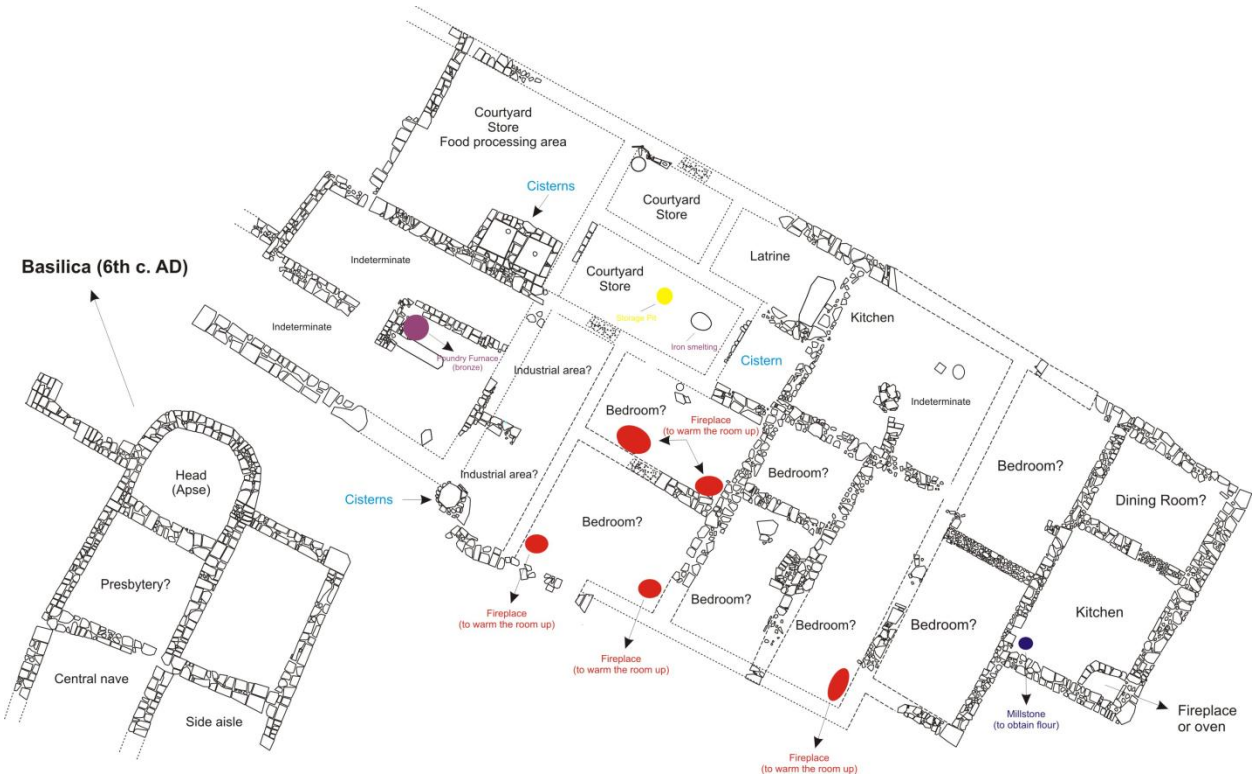


Figure 7 Map of the buildings from the Sanisera site excavated between 2008 and 2010 (Ecomuseum Cap de Cavalleria published on Wikipedia. http://en.wikipedia.org/wiki/Sanisera#Late_Antiquity) accessed on May 1, 2011.

Analysis of Artifacts

The amount of artifacts recovered were few and limited, only a total of 93 artifacts were recovered from the Necropolis in 2008 and 2009. The majority of the artifacts are glass fragments and bronze objects (Figure 8). There are several objects that are significant due to rareness of the finds as well as their characteristics are not what is expected of Roman art styles.

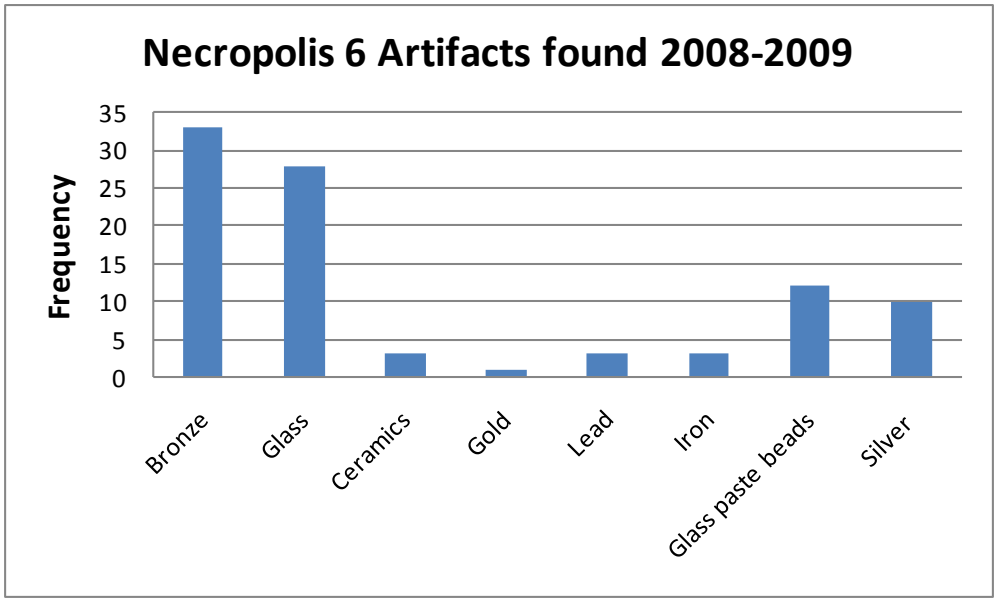


Figure 8 Eight categories of artifacts recovered from the Necropolis 6 site in 2008-2009.

Looking into the metal objects, there are items that are significant in which they can be used for comparison with Carmona Silva Berenguer's study of burials in Andalucia, Spain (Berenguer 1998). There are two coins found that are dated to be of the time of Constantius II and of Late Antiquity (Table 1). The bronze objects are dated to be of Late Antiquity most notably of up to A.D. sixth century. Archaeologist Almut Schülke's study on the Christianization of Grave-finds dated to be from the A.D. sixth century in Southern Germany, found consistent patterns among the goods in the female graves as opposed to the finds in the male graves (Appendix: Figure C). Schülke identified brooches, hairpins, earrings, bead necklace, and pendants to be of women who are of a wealthier class (Schülke 1999: 82). Poorer classes were noted to have little to no grave goods and some weapons.

Table 1. Breakdown of Bronze and Silver items of significance found in 2008-2009.

Material	Type	Total
Bronze	Indeterminate	10
	Earring	2
	Bracelet	4
	Ring	3
	Pendant	1
	Frag. Necklace	1
	Head of Hairpin	1
	Nail	1
	1/2 Cent.Constantius II	1
	1/4 Cent. Late Antiquity	1
	Necklace support frag.	3
	Chainmail fragment	2
	Pendant	1
	Indeterminate	1
	Bracelet frag.	1
Silver	Ring	3
	Earring	5
	Frag. Necklace	1
	Indetermiate	1
TOTAL		43

Statistical analysis of the artifacts cannot be performed due to the sample size being too small to test for patterns. However, by comparing the artifacts against other necropolises in mainland Spain and Europe, we should find similarities in the characteristics of the artifacts. With such a small sample collected from 2008 to 2009, whatever similarities are found should be viewed as a form of speculation and not an absolute identification. The earrings found are similar to Carmona Berenguer's artifacts in Andalusia Spain. The earring (*STE-09-2221-02)* appears to be of a simple decoration with a smaller hoop that might indicate an additional ornamentation (Figure 9). It appears that the bronze earring itself follow the techniques of the Visigoths in El Ruedo, Spain.

Figure 9 Left: Visigothic earring circled in red (Berenguer 1998: 360) and right: an earring from Necropolis 6, STE-09-2221-02 (photograph courtesy of Dr. Fernando Contreras 2010).

Another important object found were glass beads made in the form of a glass paste. This technology was commonly used by the Visigoths in comparison against the Roman Technology who have perfected the glass making techniques borrowed from the Ancient Egyptians. Artifact STE-2003-01-02 shows a similarity with the beads found in the Visigothic tombs in Andalucia, Spain (Figure 10). By looking at the beads themselves, it appears that they are molded to form concentric circles as if it were wrapped around a stick. Depending on the artisan, it can be molded in the form of flowers, rounded or plain. Another type of bead that is striking is the glass eye bead STE-09-2200-01 which is a style found as early as the Phoencians (Figure 11).

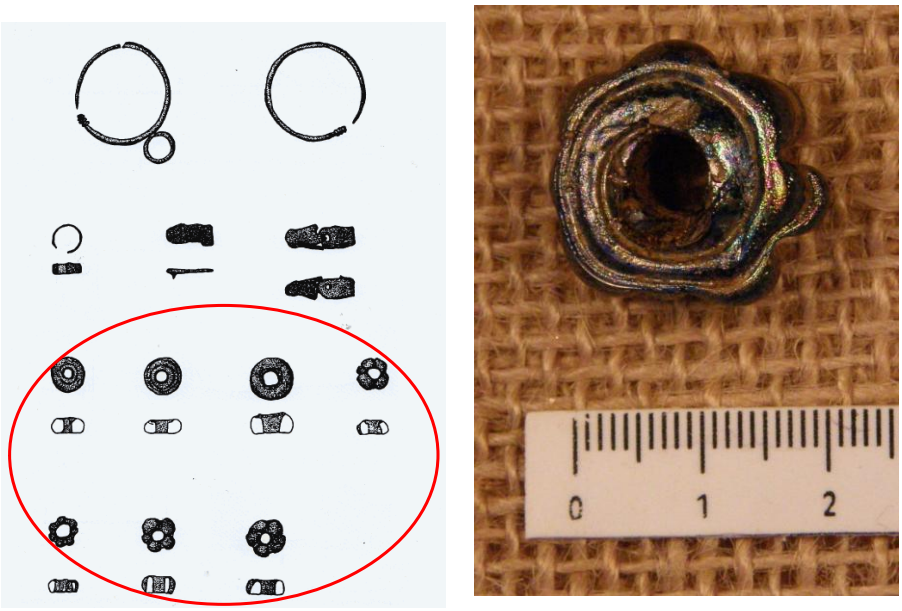


Figure 10 Left picture denotes glass beads found in Andalucia, Spain (Berenguer 1998: 360) and right picture denotes STE-2003-01-02 found in Necropolis 6 2008-2009 (photo courtesy of Dr. Fernando Contreras 2010).

Figure 11 STE-09-2200-01, glass eye bead typically found in the style of Phoenicians, probably reused into jewelry during the Late Antiquity (photography courtesy of Dr. Fernando Contreras, 2010)

This bead style of STE-09-2200-01 according to the catalogue notes are commonly found throughout the tombs in the Necropolis 6 site. Interestingly enough, Peter Heather's image of

artifacts found in the Reihengräber cemeteries in Spain show a similar bead style as the ones in Menorca (Appendix: Figure D). Unfortunately, this type of bead style is very common among the entire Mediterranean region reaching as far as Turkey.

Two artifacts STE-09-2213-02 and STE-08-2014-01 are of Christian origin and design (Figure 12). Object STE-08-2014-01 is fragmented but with the shape of the object itself, it appears to be of a cross. The horizontal ends appear to flare out and there are some notches towards the center of the object. If it were complete, we could see more of its shape as a whole. Object STE-09-2213-02 is a ring found in Tomb 13 possibly belonging to a male with a diameter of 2.2 centimeters. In the center of the ring, there appears to be an engraving of a cross with two astral symbols, possibly stars, on each side of the cross. Both of these objects are most likely of Christian origin but its exact date is unknown.

Figure 12 Left, STE-08-2014-01, lead artifact appears to bear the shape of a cross; Right, STE-09-2213-02, bronze ring with decoration (photograph courtesy of Dr. Fernando Contreras, 2010).

A tomb in St. Denis, Paris was discovered to be the burial of Frankish Queen Arnegunde of the late A.D. sixth century. She was found to have a pair of earrings, hairpins, brooches and

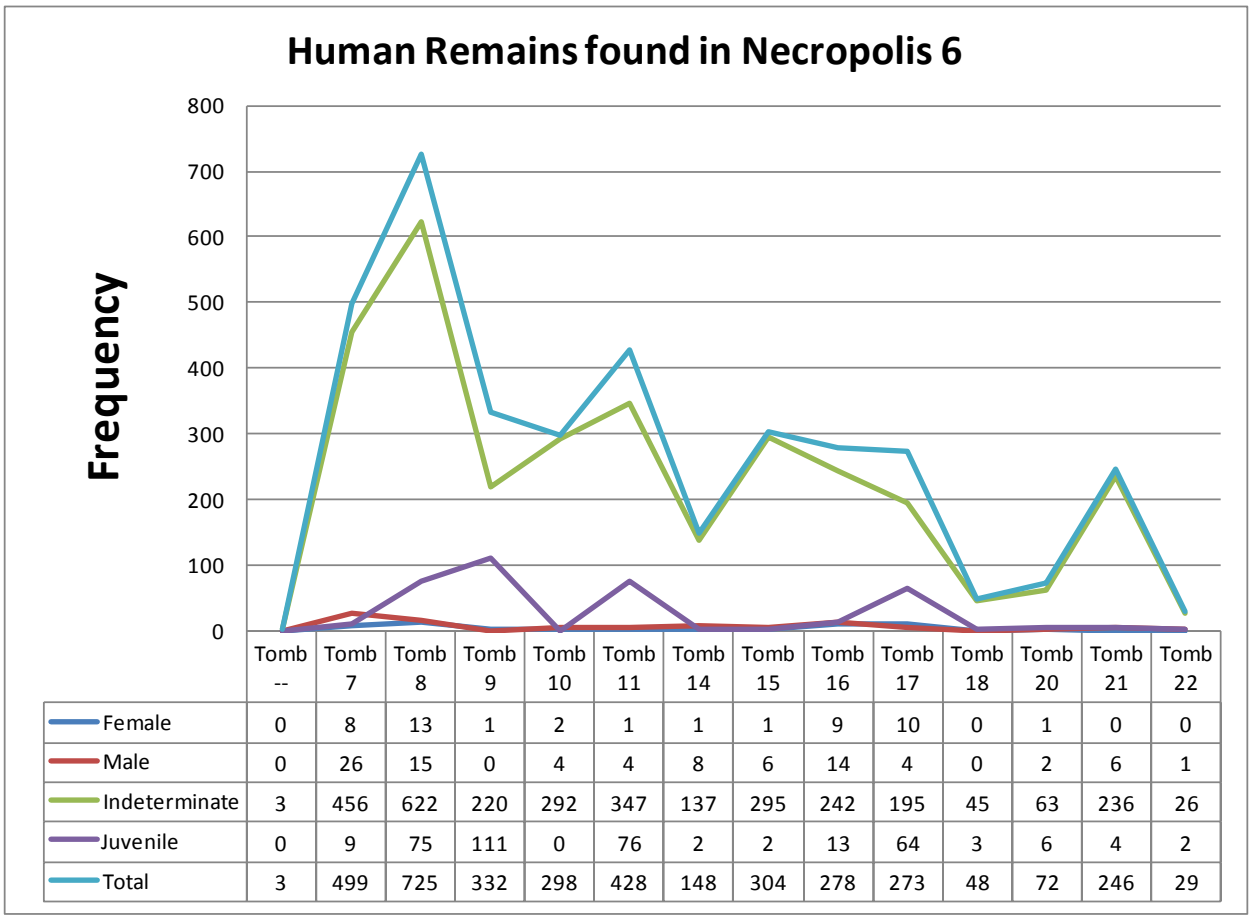
other jewelry intact in the burial (Figure 13). The pair of earring are similar to STE-09-2221-02 in which it is a hoop earring with a loop clasp. The differences between the two items are the materials from which the jewelry is made from. Arnegunde's jewelry is composed of mostly gold whereas STE-09-2221-02 is made out of bronze. A pair of hairpins is also found in Arnegunde's tomb which is an indication that the objects in question are related to females.

Figure 13 Treasures of Queen Arnegunde from St. Denis, Paris France dated to be A.D. sixth century (http://www.studydroid.com/index.php?page=viewPack&packId=117960 and http://www.saint-denis.culture.fr/en/2_2_aregonde.htm) accessed on May 2, 2011

Analysis of Tombs

The tombs in Necropolis 6 are rectangular in shape, rock cut and lined with *opus caementium*. The human remains found in the 14 tombs are disarticulated, and in a poor state of perseveration. There has been evidence of looting in the past due to disturbances in the soil stratigraphy , but no recent lootings have occurred. The tombs are oriented in a west-east orientation which is typical of Christian burials (Berenguer 1998). The human remains are mixed due to the inhabitants

intentionally reusing the graves, moving the previous burials to make room for the recently deceased. The structures of the tombs themselves reveal a similar pattern found throughout Hispania and Gaul. The majority of the tombs appears to be rectangular and lined with rock cut walls (Appendix: Figure E). The tombs themselves were reused for reburial (Appendix: Figure F) in a manner in which the bones from the previous burials were moved to the side to make room for the new body. Each tomb uncovered contained remains of males, females, juveniles, as well as many bones which are indeterminate (Figure 14).



	Tomb --	Tomb 7	Tomb 8	Tomb 9	Tomb 10	Tomb 11	Tomb 14	Tomb 15	Tomb 16	Tomb 17	Tomb 18	Tomb 20	Tomb 21	Tomb 22
Female	0	8	13	1	2	1	1	1	9	10	0	1	0	0
Male	0	26	15	0	4	4	8	6	14	4	0	2	6	1
Indeterminate	3	456	622	220	292	347	137	295	242	195	45	63	236	26
Juvenile	0	9	75	111	0	76	2	2	13	64	3	6	4	2
Total	3	499	725	332	298	428	148	304	278	273	48	72	246	29

Figure 14 Note the mixture of gender and ages of the remains in the tombs.

By using Microsoft Access software, I examined each stratum in each tomb to find patterns of where the bones are in relation to burial chronology, if there are multiple burials in one stratum,

and if the artifacts have any association with the human remains. The chart is then illustrated in Microsoft Excel as a graph to highlight that the majority of the remains are disarticulated and mixed. The artifacts in relation to the stratum of the tombs indicate that the owners are mostly of mixed gender (Table 2). The data below only lists items of significance in relation to the stratum of the tombs in Necropolis 6 of 2009. Unfortunately, no record was given for the 2008 tomb excavations of Necropolis 6 to match the stratum of the artifacts found in that year. It is apparent that the tombs themselves are disturbed to the point that there is a mixing of individuals in one stratum. The majority of the individuals buried with the artifacts are adults and the majority of the artifacts associated with the gender are mixed.

Table 2 Stratigraphy of artifacts found in Necropolis 6 2009; F = Female, M = Male, I = Indeterminate, A = Adult, J = Juvenile

Aquisition Number	Stratum	Class	Type	Tomb	Sex	Age
STE-09-2072-02	2072	Silver	Ring	7	F	A
STE-09-2208-01	2208	Lead	Indeterminate	11	I	A/J
STE-09-2208-02	2208	Iron	Nail	11	I	A/J
STE-09-2209-01	2209	Bronze	Necklace fragment	11	F	A
STE-09-2209-02	2209	Glass Paste	Bead	11	M/F/I	A
STE-09-2209-03	2209	Glass Paste	Small ellipse	11	M/F/I	A
STE-09-2232	2232	Silver	Ring	21	M/I	A
STE-09-2249-01	2249	Iron	Indeterminate	15	I	A
STE-09-2252-01	2252	Bronze	Necklace fragment	16	M/F/I	A
STE-09-2252-02	2252	Ceramic	Blue catalan or modern type	16	M/F/I	A
STE-09-2252-03	2252	Silver	Ring fragment	16	M/F/I	A
STE-09-2252-04	2252	Bronze	Indeterminate	16	M/F/I	A
STE-09-2260-01	2260	Silver	Hoop earrings	16	M/F/I	A/J
STE-09-2268-01	2268	Bronze	Pendant	15	M/I	A

Conclusion

It its most likely that the tombs were communal due to the mixture of individuals (male, female, juvenile) found. It is also likely that in relation to the to the artifacts found, and in historical documentation that the most likely dominant culture of the people buried were not only

Christian, but also of Germanic origin. Whether it is Visigothic or Vandal is up to debate but it is important to note that it is mostly likely that there is an immersion of cultures between Romans and Germanic people living in the area that formed the Hispanic nation before the Moor conquest of A.D. 711. Due to the geographic and political isolation, the kingdom of the Germanic conquerors provided an environment that enables them to preserve their cultures and develop their society. Not only that, the similarities within the Germanic kingdoms provided an insight to how tribal traditions are spread and kept throughout Europe.

In terms of what traits can be identified as female, it is most likely that the jewelry are symbols of female gender. It is uncommon for Visigothic males to wear jewelry (with the exception of rings) especially if they participate in wars. S.P. Scott mentions that the Visigothic men wore long hair as a symbol of pride of their tribe. It is apparent that the Visigothic code allows women to participate in court (as witnesses), free to marry a Roman or Goth of her choosing, right to property, and also the general law that all tombs are protected by law which indicate that women enjoyed these freedoms almost unheard of in the Medieval period. In Almut Schülke's study, the artifacts found in the Reihengräber cemeteries in Germany as well as the Reihengräber cemeteries (both dated in sixth century AD) in Spain are very similar in style and technique. Schülke notes in detail that the artifacts in association with female graves (earrings, pendants, bracelets and beads) are from women of higher status. This means that the women buried with their possessions, are of a wealthier class which coincides with the Germanic tribes in Hispania being the rulers and socializing with the Roman elites.

It is also noted that the items found in the Reihengräberfeldern are seen as charms for the afterlife and not wholly exclusive to the Christian faith. It is most likely that the women of the Necropolis 6 do practice the Christian faith but they uphold their Germanic traditions as part of

their identity. Even with the small sample of the artifacts in this study used, we cannot ignore the implications on the Germanic influence in the former Roman Empire.

Appendices

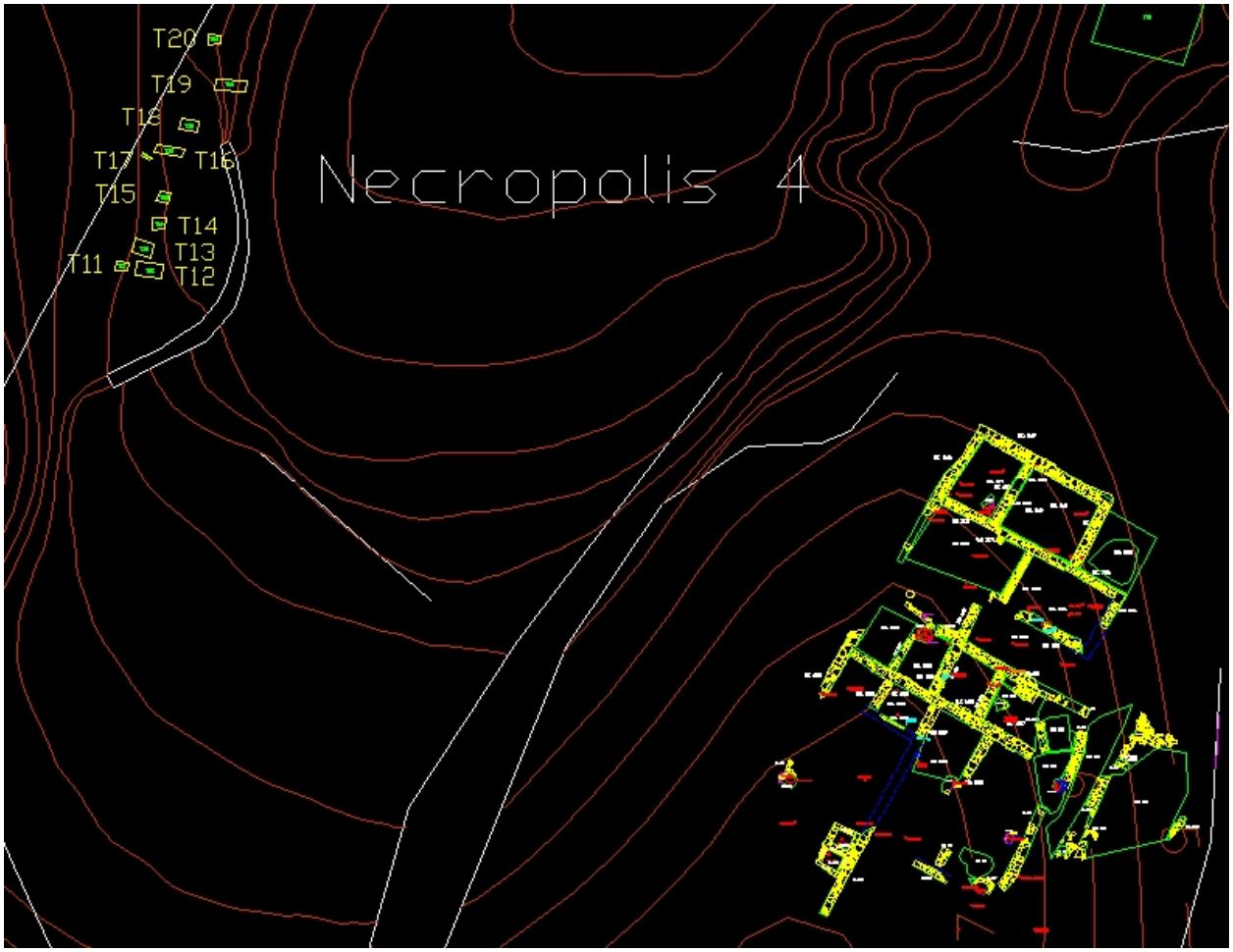


Figure A. Map of the Necropolis 4 found in relation to the site of Sanisera, which is in the lower right corner (courtesy of Dr. Fernando Contreras).

Figure B Remains of a Talayot watchtower from the Bronze Age (personal photograph from author 2010)

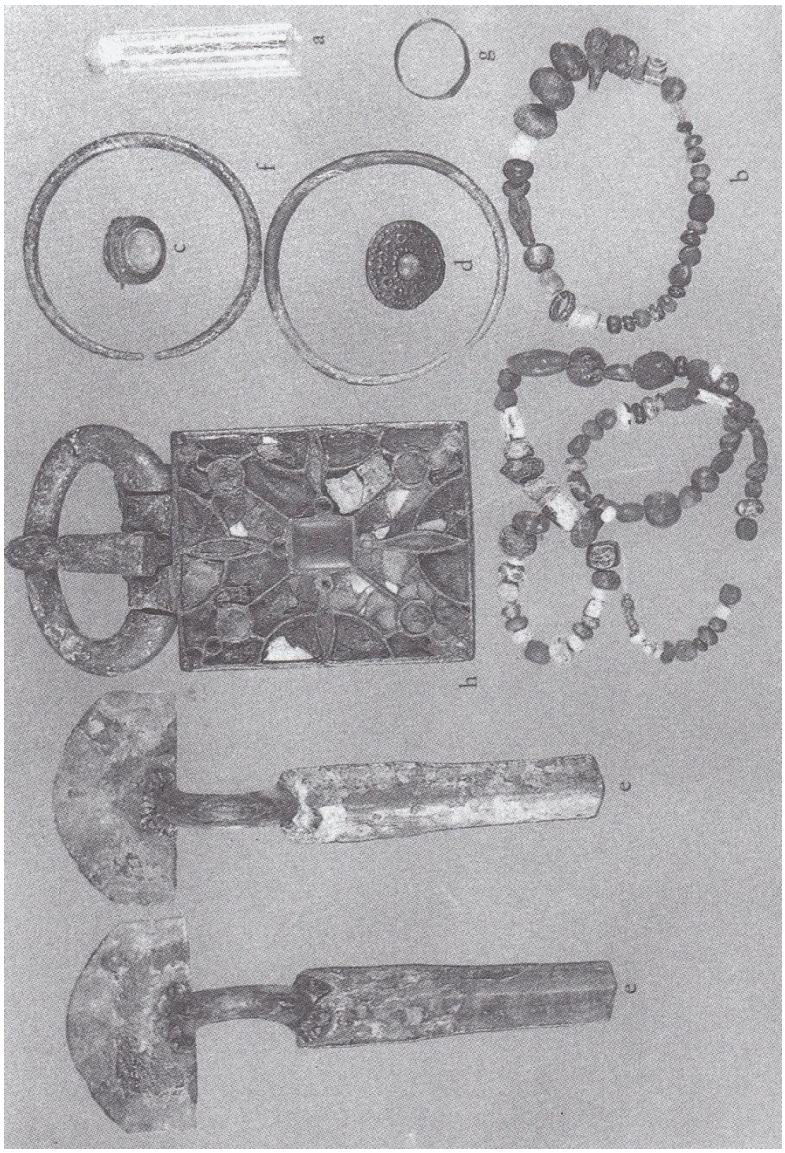


Figure C Collection of artifacts found at a Spanish Reihengräber cemetery (Heather 1996: 204)

Quality group 'Qualitätsgruppe'	Archaeological feature Male grave	Female grave	Popular term 'Gemeinverständliche Bezeichnung'
A	without grave-goods seax arrow and bow undecorated belt	without grave-goods glass beads knife	poor, very poor
B	sword *Sax* (seax) spear shield decorated belt glass vessel (6th cent.)	brooch/brooches hairpin (bronze) earring (bronze/silver) bead necklace charm pendant girdle hanger leggings shoe buckles silver finger ring glass vessel (6th cent.)	wealthy (average)
C	*Spatha* (sword) *Sax* (seax) spear shield *Ango* (ango) decorated belt horse-bit and harness bronze vessel bronze-furnished bucket glass vessel (7th cent.)	complete brooch equipment hairpin (bronze or silver) earring (silver/gold) bead necklace charm pendant girdle assembly leggings shoe buckles golden finger ring bronze vessel bronze-furnished wooden box glass vessel (7th cent.)	wealthy (above the average)
D	like C, plus specially manufactured details	like C, plus specially manufactured details	unusually rich

Figure C Table of grave goods found in a Reihengräberfelden in southern Germany (Schülke 1999: 82)

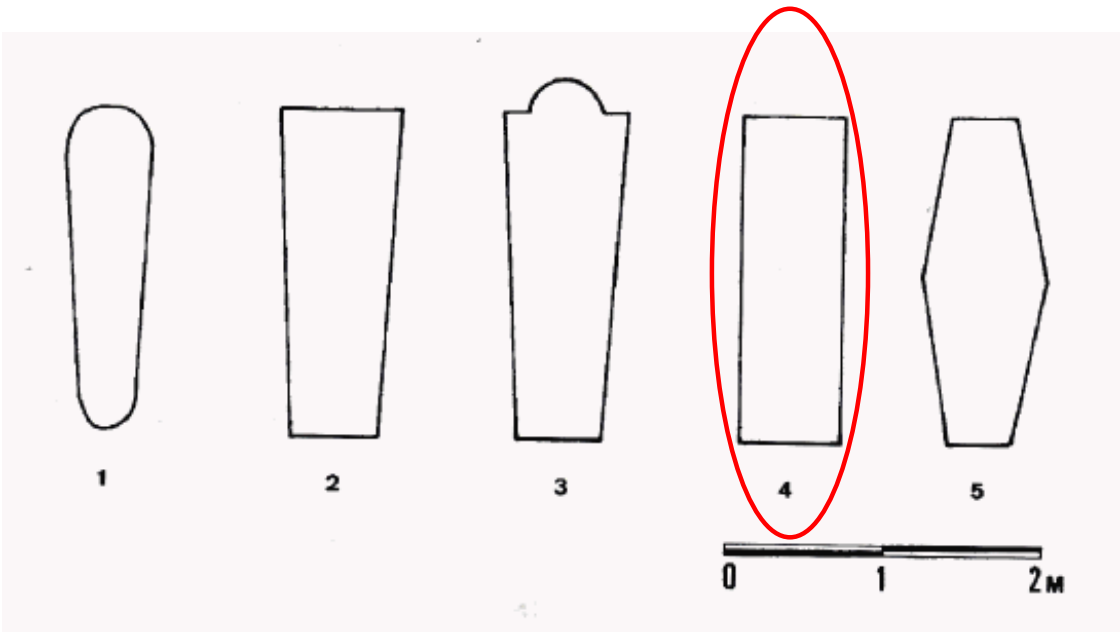


Figure D Above: Different types of tomb structure shapes in El Ruedo Spain (Berenguer 1998: 95), Below: Rectangular tomb, rock lined and with headstone (photograph from author 2010)

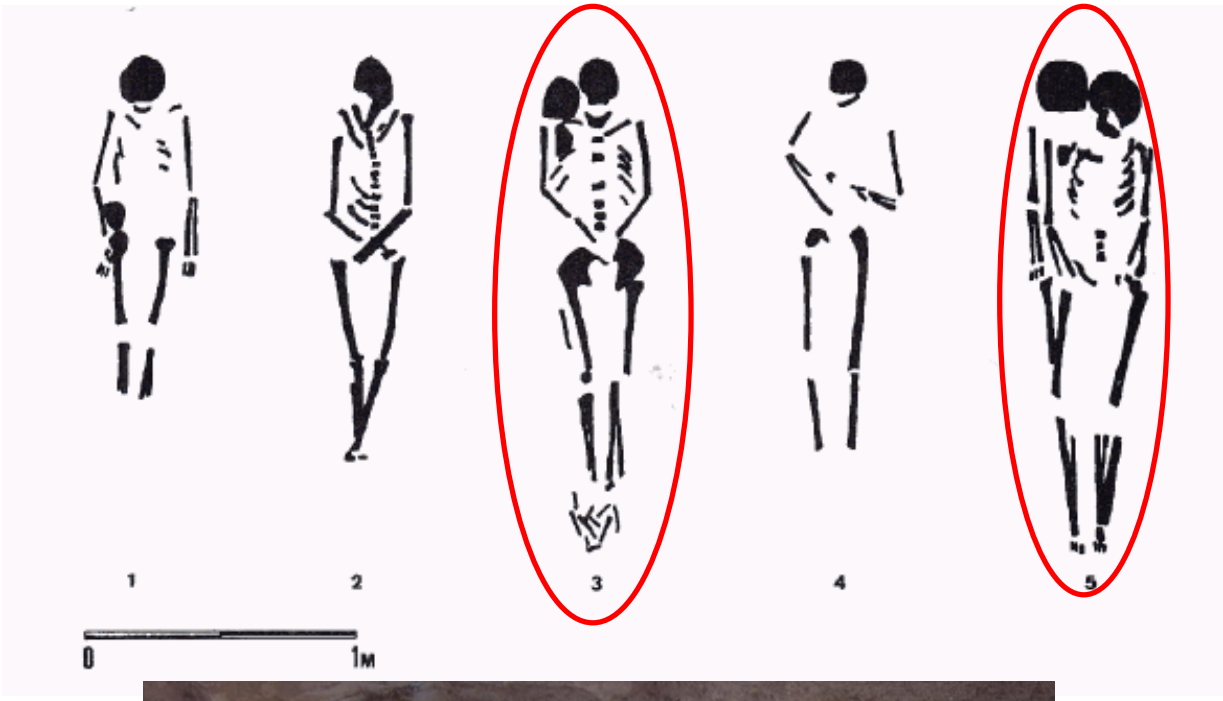


Figure E Above: Five types of burials commonly found in El Ruedo, Spain (Berenguer 1998: 101), Below: Image of disarticulated remains in a tomb, note the most recent burial in relation to the previous burials that are pushed away to make room for the recent burial (photography courtesy of Dr. Fernando Contreras 2010).

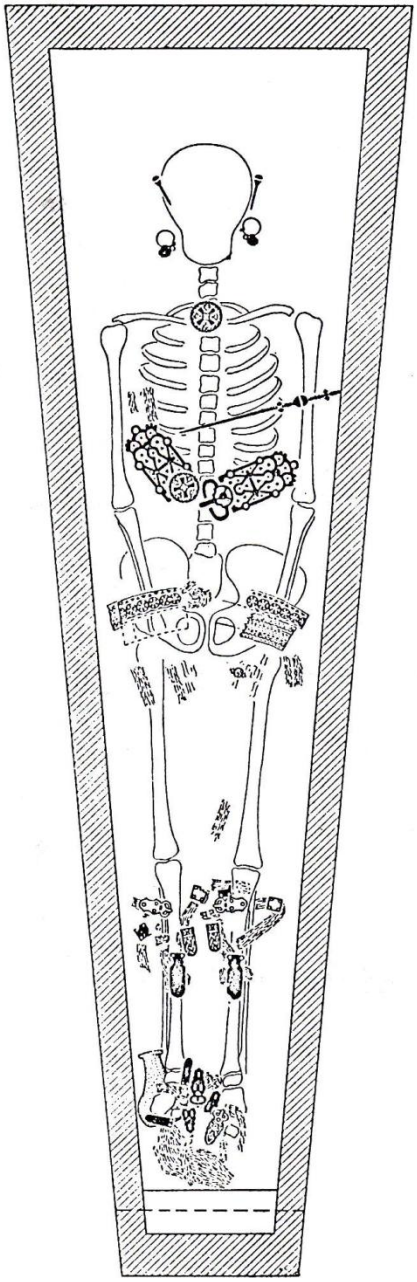


Figure G Illustration of Queen Arnegunde's tomb in St. Denis, Paris, France dated late A.D. sixth century (Todd 1992: 190)

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